Fine-Tuning LLMs Or Zero/Few-Shot Prompting for Knowledge Graph Construction?

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Abstract. This paper explores Text-to-Knowledge Graph (T2KG) construction,, assessing Zero-Shot Prompting (ZSP), Few-Shot Prompting (FSP), and Fine-Tuning (FT) methods with Large Language Models (LLMs). Through comprehensive experimentation with Llama2, Mistral, and Starling, we highlight the strengths of FT, emphasize dataset size's role, and introduce nuanced evaluation metrics. Promising perspectives include synonym-aware metric refinement, and data augmentation with LLMs. The study contributes valuable insights to KG construction methodologies, setting the stage for further advancements.[a]

Keywords. *Text-to-Knowledge Graph; Large Language Models; Zero-Shot Prompting; Few-Shot Prompting; Fine-Tuning*

[a]Our code at `https://github.com/ChristopheCruz/LLM4KGC/`

1 Introduction

The term "knowledge graph" has been around since 1972, but its current definition can be traced back to Google's 2012. This was followed by similar announcements from companies such as Airbnb, Amazon, eBay, Facebook, IBM, LinkedIn, Microsoft, and Uber, among others, leading to an increase in the adoption of Knowledge graphs(KGs) by various industries. As a result, academic research in this field has seen a surge in recent years, with an increasing number of scientific publications on KGs [1]. These graphs utilize a graph-based data model to effectively manage, integrate, and extract valuable insights from large and diverse datasets [2].

KGs serve as repositories for structured knowledge, organized into a collection of triples, denoted as $KG = (h, r, t) \subseteq E \times R \times E$, where E represents the set of entities, and R represents the set of relations [1]. Within a graph, nodes represent various levels, entities, or concepts. These nodes encompass diverse types, including person, book, or city, and are interconnected by relationships such as located in, lives in, or works with. The essence of a KG emerges when it incorporates multiple types of relationships rather than being confined to a single type. The overarching structure of a KG constitutes a network of entities, featuring their semantic types, properties, and interconnections. Thus, constructing a KG necessitates information

about entities (along with their types and properties) and the semantic relationships that bind them. For the extraction of entities and relationships, practitioners often turn to NLP tasks like Named Entity Recognition (NER), Coreference Resolution (CR), and Relation Extraction (RE).

KGs play a crucial role in organizing complex information across diverse domains, such as question answering, recommendations, semantic search, etc. However, the ongoing challenge persists in constructing them, particularly as the primary sources of knowledge are embedded in unstructured textual data such as press articles, emails, and scientific journals. This challenge can be addressed by adopting an information extraction approach, sometimes implemented as a pipeline. It involves taking textual inputs, processing them using Natural Language Processing (NLP) techniques, and leveraging the acquired knowledge to construct or enhance the KG.

If we envision the Text-to-Knowledge Graph (T2KG) construction task as a black box, the input is textual data, and the output is a knowledge graph. Achieving this can be approached through methods that directly convert text into a graph or by implementing NLP tasks in two ways: 1) through an information extraction pipeline incorporating the mentioned tasks independently, or 2) by adopting an end-to-end approach, also known as joint prediction, using Large Language Models (LLMs) for example. In the realm of LLMs and KGs, their mutual enhancement is evident. LLMs can assist in the construction of KGs. Conversely, KGs can be employed to validate outputs from LLMs or provide explanations for them [3]. LLMs can be adapted to KG construction task (T2KG) through various approaches, such as fine-tuning [4] (FT), zero-shot prompting [5] (ZSP), or few-shot prompting (FSP) [6] with a limited number of examples. Each of these approaches has their pros and cons with respect to the performance, computation resources, training time, domain adaption and training data required.

In-context learning, as discussed by [7], coupled with prompt design, involves telling a model to execute a new task by presenting it with only a few demonstrations of input-output pairs during inference. Instruction fine-tuning methods, exemplified by InstructGPT [8] and Reinforcement Learning from Human Feedback (RLHF) [9], markedly enhance the model's ability to comprehend and follow a diverse range of written instructions. Numerous LLMs have been introduced in the last year, as highlighted by [3], particularly within the ChatGPT [42] like models, which includes GPT-3 [10], LLaMA [11], BLOOM [12], PaLM [13], Mistral [14], Starling [18] and Zephyr [16]. These models can be readily repurposed for KG construction from text by employing a prompt design that incorporates instructions and contextual information.

This study does not entail a comparison with traditional methods of constructing KGs; rather, it delves into the developments and challenges associated with KG construction methodologies, and aiming at providing formal evaluation of T2KG task. Specifically, we focus on the utilization of LLMs, and explore the three approaches mentioned before, Zero-shot, Few-shot and Fine-tuning (Fig. 1). Each of these approaches addresses specific challenges, contributing significantly to the evolution of T2KG construction techniques.

The present study is organized as follows, Section 2 presents a comprehensive overview of the current state-of-the-art approaches for Text to KG (T2KG) Construction. In the Section 3, we present the general architecture of our proposed implementation (method), with datasets, metrics, and experiments. Section 4 then encapsulates the findings and discussions, presenting the culmination of results. Finally, Section 5 critically examines the strengths and limitations of these techniques.

2 Background

The current state of research on knowledge graph construction using LLMs is discussed. Three main approaches are identified: Zero-Shot, Few-Shot, and Fine-Tuning. Each approach has its own challenges, such as maintaining accuracy without specific training data or ensuring the robustness of models in diverse real-world scenarios. Evaluation metrics used to assess the quality of constructed KGs are also discussed, including semantic consistency and linguistic coherence. This section highlight methods and metrics to construct KGs and evaluate the result.

The figure 1 illustrates the black box joint prediction of the T2KG construction process using LLMs. It demonstrates how two French examples on the left are converted into an expected result (KG) on the right using ZSP, FSP or FT approaches with LLMs.

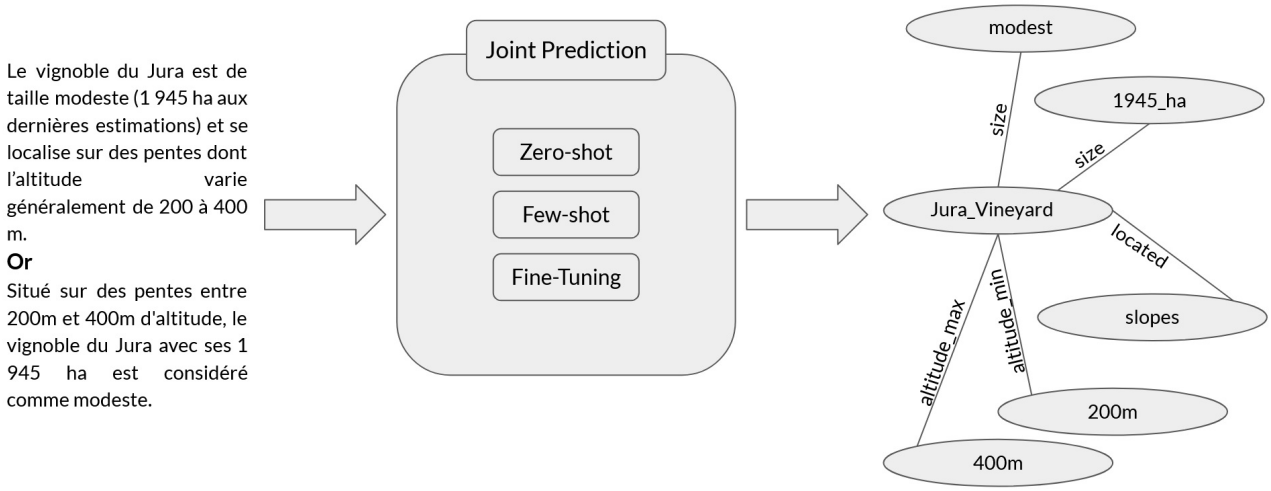

Figure 1: T2KG Task

2.1 Zero Shot

Zero Shot methods enable KG construction without task-specific training data, leveraging the inherent capabilities of large language models. [17] introduce an innovative approach using large language models (LLMs) for knowledge graph construction, employing iterative zero-shot prompting for scalable and flexible KG construction. [18] evaluate the performance of LLMs, specifically GPT-4 and ChatGPT, in KG construction and reasoning tasks, introducing the Virtual Knowledge Extraction task and the VINE dataset, but they do not take into account open sourced LLMs as LLaMA [11]. [19] assess ChatGPT's abilities in information extraction tasks, identifying overconfidence as an issue and releasing annotated datasets. [20] tackle zero-shot information extraction using ChatGPT, achieving impressive results in entity relation triple extraction. [21] propose a method for Knowledge Graph Construction (KGC) using an analogy-based approach, demonstrating superior performance on Wikidata. [22] address the limitations of existing generative knowledge graph construction methods by leveraging large generative language models trained on structured data. The most of these approaches having the same limitation, which is the use of closed and huge LLMs as ChatGPT or GPT4 for this task. Challenges in this area include maintaining accuracy without specific training data and addressing nuanced relationships between entities in untrained domains.

2.2 Few Shot

Few Shot methods focus on constructing KGs with limited training examples, aiming to achieve accurate knowledge representation with minimal data. [6] introduce PiVe, a framework enhancing the graph-based generative capabilities of LLMs, and the authors create a verifier which is responsable to verifie the results of LLMs with multi-iteration type. [23] explore the potential of LLMs for knowledge graph completion, treating triples as text sequences and utilizing LLM responses for predictions. [24] automate the process of generating structured knowledge graphs from natural language text using foundation models. [25] present OpenBG, an open business knowledge graph derived from Alibaba Group, containing 2.6 billion triples with over 88 million entities. [26] explore the integration of LLMs with semantic technologies for reasoning and inference. [27] investigate LLMs' application in relation labeling for e-commerce Knowledge Graphs (KGs). As ZSP approaches, FSP approaches use closed and huge LLMs as ChatGPT or GPT4 [42] for this task. Challenges in this area include achieving high accuracy with minimal training data and ensuring the robustness of models in diverse real-world scenarios.

2.3 Fine-Tuning

Fine-Tuning methods involve adapting pre-trained language models to specific knowledge domains, enhancing their capabilities for constructing KGs tailored to particular contexts. [4] present a case study automating KG construction for compliance using BERT-based models. This study emphasizes the importance of machine learning models in interpreting rules for compliance automation. [28] propose an approach for knowledge extraction and analysis from biomedical clinical notes, utilizing the BERT model and a Conditional Random Field layer, showcasing the effectiveness of leveraging BERT models for structured biomedical knowledge graphs. [29] propose Knowledge Graph-Enhanced Large Language Models (KGLLMs), enhancing LLMs with KGs for improved factual reasoning capabilities. These approaches that applied FT, they do not use new generations of LLMs, specially, decoder only LLMs as Llama, and Mistral. Challenges in this domain include ensuring the scalability, interpretability, and robustness of fine-tuned models across diverse knowledge domains.

2.4 Evaluation metrics

As we employ LLMs to construct KGs, and given that LLMs function as Natural Language Generation (NLG) models, it becomes imperative to discuss NLG criteria. In NLG, two criteria [30] are used to assess the quality of the produced answers (triples in our context).

The first criterion is semantic consistency or Semantic Fidelity which quantifies the fidelity of the data produced against the input data. The most common indicators are :

- **Hallucination**: It is manifested by the Presence of information (facts) in the generated text that is absent in the input data. In our scenario, hallucination exists if the generated triples (GT) contain triples not present in the ground truth triples (ET) (T in GT and not in ET);

- **Omission**: It is manifested by the omission of one of the pieces of information (facts) in the generated text. In our case, omission occurs if a triple is present in ET but not in GT;

- **Redundancy**: This is manifested by the repetition of information in the generated text. In our case, the redundancy exists if a triple appears more than once in GT;

- **Accuracy**: The lack of accuracy is manifested by the modification of information such as the inversion of the subject and the direct object complement in the generated text. Accuracy increases if there is an exact match between ET and GT. ;

- **Ordering**: It occurs when the sequence of information is different from the input data. In our case, the ordering of GT is not consider.

The second criterion is linguistic coherence or Output Fluency to evaluate the fluidity of the text and the linguistic constructions of the generated text, the segmentation of the text into different sentences, the use of anaphoric pronouns to reference entities and to have linguistically correct sentences. However, in our evaluation, we do not take into account the second criterion.

In their experiments, [3] calculated three hallucination metrics - subject hallucination, relation hallucination, and object hallucination - using certain preprocessing steps such as stemming. They used the ground truth ontology alongside the ground truth test sentence to determine if an entity or relation is present in the text. However, a limitation could arise when there is a disparity in entities or relations between the ground truth ontology and the ground truth test sentence. If the generated triples contain entities or relations not present in the ground truth text, even if they exist in the ground truth ontology, it will be considered a hallucination.

The authors of [6] evaluate their experiments using several evaluation metrics, including Triple Match F1 (T-F1), Graph Match F1 (G-F1), G-BERTScore (G-BS) from [36] and Graph Edit Distance (GED) from [37]. The GED metric measures the distance between the predicted graph and the ground-truth graph, which is equivalent to computing the number of edit operations (addition, deletion, or replacement of nodes and edges) needed to transform the predicted graph into a graph that is identical to the ground-truth graph, but it does not provide a specific path for these operations to calculate the exact number of operations. To adhere with semantic consistency criterion, we use the terms "omission" and "hallucination" in place of "addition" and "deletion," respectively.

3 Propositions

This section describes our approach to evaluate the quality of generated KGs. We explain how we use evaluation metrics such as T-F1, G-F1, G-BS, GED, Bleu-F1 [38] and ROUGE-F1 [39] to assess the quality of the generated KGs in comparison to ground-truth KGs. Additionally, we discuss the use of Optimal Edit Paths (OEP) metric [1] to determine the precise number of operations required to transform the predicted graph into an identical representation of the ground-truth graph. This metric serves as a basis for calculating omissions and hallucinations in the generated graphs. We employ examples from the WebNLG+2020 dataset [40] for testing with ZSP and FSP techniques. Additionally, we utilize the training dataset of WebNLG+2020 to train LLMs using the FT technique. Subsequent subsections delve into a detailed discussion of each phase.

[1] NetworkX - optimal edit paths : `https://networkx.org/documentation/stable/index.html`

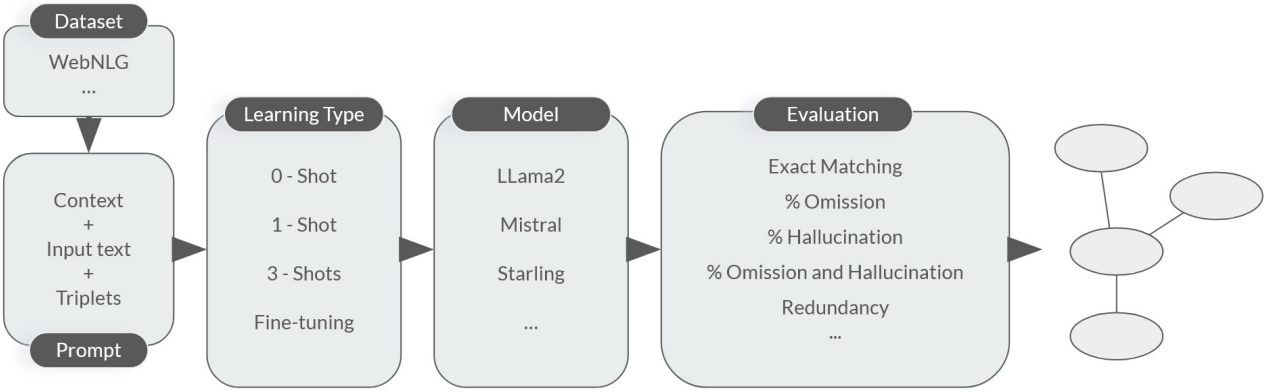

Figure 2: Overall experimentation's process

3.1 Overall experimentation's process

We leverage the WebNLG+2020 dataset, specifically the version curated by [6]. Their preparation of graphs in lists of triples proves beneficial for evaluation purposes. We utilize these lists and employ NetworkX [41] to transform them back into graphs, facilitating evaluations on the resultant graphs. This step is instrumental in performing ZSP, FSP, and FT LLMs on this dataset.

The figure 2 illustrates the different stages of our experimentation process, including data preparation, model selection, training, validation, and evaluation. The process begins with data preparation, where the WEBNLG dataset is preprocessed and split into training, validation, and test sets. Next, the learning type is selected, and different models are trained using the training set. The trained models are then evaluated on the validation set to evaluate their performance. Finally, the best-performing model is selected and validated on the test set to estimate its generalization ability.

3.2 Prompting learning

During this phase, we employ the ZSP and FSP techniques on LLMs to evaluate their proficiency in extracting triples (e.g. construction of the KG). The application of these techniques involves merging examples from the test dataset of WebNLG+2020 with our adapted prompt. Our prompt is strategically modified to provide contextual guidance to the LLMs, facilitating the effective extraction of triples, without the inclusion of a support ontology description, as demonstrated in [3]. The specific prompts used for ZSP and FSP are illustrated in Fig 3(a) and Fig 3(b),

In our approach for ZSP, we began with the methodology outlined in [6], initiating our prompt with the directive "Transform the text into a semantic graph." However, we enhanced this prompt by incorporating additional sentences tailored for our LLMs, as illustrated in Fig 3.(a).

For FSP, we executed 7-shots learning. The rationale behind employing 7-shots learning lies in the fact that the maximum KG size in WebNLG+2020 is 7 triples. Consequently, we fed our prompt with 7 examples of varying sizes; example 1 with size 1, example 2 with size 2, example 3 with size 3, and so forth. In Figure 3-b, we depict a prompt containing two examples.

To demonstrate the efficacy of our refined prompt (including additional sentences), we conducted zero-shot experiments on ChatGPT [42], comparing the outcomes with those of [6]. Our results consistently reveal that our prompt yields more coherent answers in terms of struc-

a) Zero shot prompt

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Prompt_ZeroShot : "Transform the text into a semantic graph, which means, extract the triples from the text in format of lists like the following, [[\"subject\", \"predicate\", \"object\"], [\"subject\", \"predicate\", \"object\"], [\"subject\", \"predicate\", \"object\"]].\nText: " + input_text + "\nSemantic graph: "
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b) Two shots prompt

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Prompt_TwoShot = "Transform the text into a semantic graph, which means, extract the triples from the text in format of lists like the following, [[\"subject\", \"predicate\", \"object\"], [\"subject\", \"predicate\", \"object\"], [\"subject\", \"predicate\", \"object\"]].\nExample 1: \nText: Aarhus Airport serves the city of Aarhus, Denmark.\nSemantic graph: [[\"Aarhus Airport\", \"city Served\", \"Aarhus Denmark\"]].\nExample 2 :\nText: Aleksandr Prudnikov plays for FC Amkar Perm and FC Tom Tomsk.\nSemantic graph: [[\"Aleksandr Prudnikov\", \"club\", \"FC Amkar Perm\"], [\"Aleksandr Prudnikov\", \"club\", \"FC Tom Tomsk\"]].\nText: " + input_text + "\nSemantic graph:"
```

Figure 3: Prompting examples

ture.

3.3 Finetuning

If the initial results from the ZSP and FSP on LLMs prove reasonable, we proceed to the FT phase. This phase aims to provide the LLMs with a more specific context and knowledge related to the task of extracting triples within the domains covered by the WebNLG+2020 dataset. Using the example "a)" illustrated in Fig 3, we passe in the FT prompt, at once for each line of the training dataset, the input text and the corresponding KG (the list of triples). To do this phase (FT), we employ QLoRA [31], a methodology that integrates quantization [32] and Low-Rank Adapters (LoRA) [33]. The LLM is loaded with 4-bit precision using bitsandbytes [34], and the training process incorporates LoRA through the PEFT library (Parameter-Efficient Fine-Tuning) [35] provided by Hugging Face.

3.4 Postprocessing

Given our focus on KG construction, our evaluation process involves assessing the generated KGs against ground-truth KGs. To facilitate this evaluation, we take a cleaning process for the LLMs output. This involves transforming the graphs generated by LLMs into organized lists of triples, subsequently transferred to textual documents.

The transformation is executed through rule-based processing. This step is applied to remove corrupted text (outside the lists of triples) from the whole text generated by LLMs in the preceding step. The output is then presented in a list of lists of triples format, optimizing our evaluation process. This approach proves especially effective when calculating metrics such as G-F1, GED, and OEP, as we will see in more detail in 3.5

A potential problem arises when instructing LLMs to produce lists of triples (KGs), as there may be instances where the generated text lacks the desired structure. In such cases, we

address this issue by substituting the generated text with an empty list of triples, represented as '[["","",""]]', allowing us to effectively evaluate omissions. However, this approach tends to underestimate hallucinations compared to the actual occurrences.

3.5 Experiment's evaluation

For assessing the quality of the generated graphs in comparison to ground-truth graphs, we adopt evaluation metrics as employed in [6]. These metrics encompass T-F1, G-F1, G-BS [36], and GED [37]. Additionally, we incorporate the Optimal Edit Paths (OEP) metric, a tool aiding in the calculation of omissions and hallucinations within the generated graphs.

Our evaluation procedure aligns with the methodology outlined in [6], particularly in the computation of GED and G-F1. This involves constructing directed graphs from lists of triples, referred to as linearized graphs, utilizing NetworkX [41].

In contrast to [3], our methodology diverges by not relying on the ground truth test sentence of an ontology. As previously mentioned, we opt for a distinct approach wherein we assess omissions and hallucinations in the generated graphs using the OEP metric. Unlike the global edit distance provided by GED, OEP gives the precise path of the edit, enabling the exact quantification of omissions and hallucinations, either in absolute terms or as a percentage across the entire test dataset.

For example, in the illustrated nodes path labeled 'a)' in Fig 4-(b), we observe 2 omissions, while the edges path in Fig 4-(a) exhibits 1 hallucination. In our evaluation, the criterion for incrementing the global hallucination metric for all graphs is set at finding >=1 hallucinations or 1 omission in a generated graph. This approach ensures a comprehensive assessment of the presence of omissions and hallucinations across the entirety of the generated graphs.

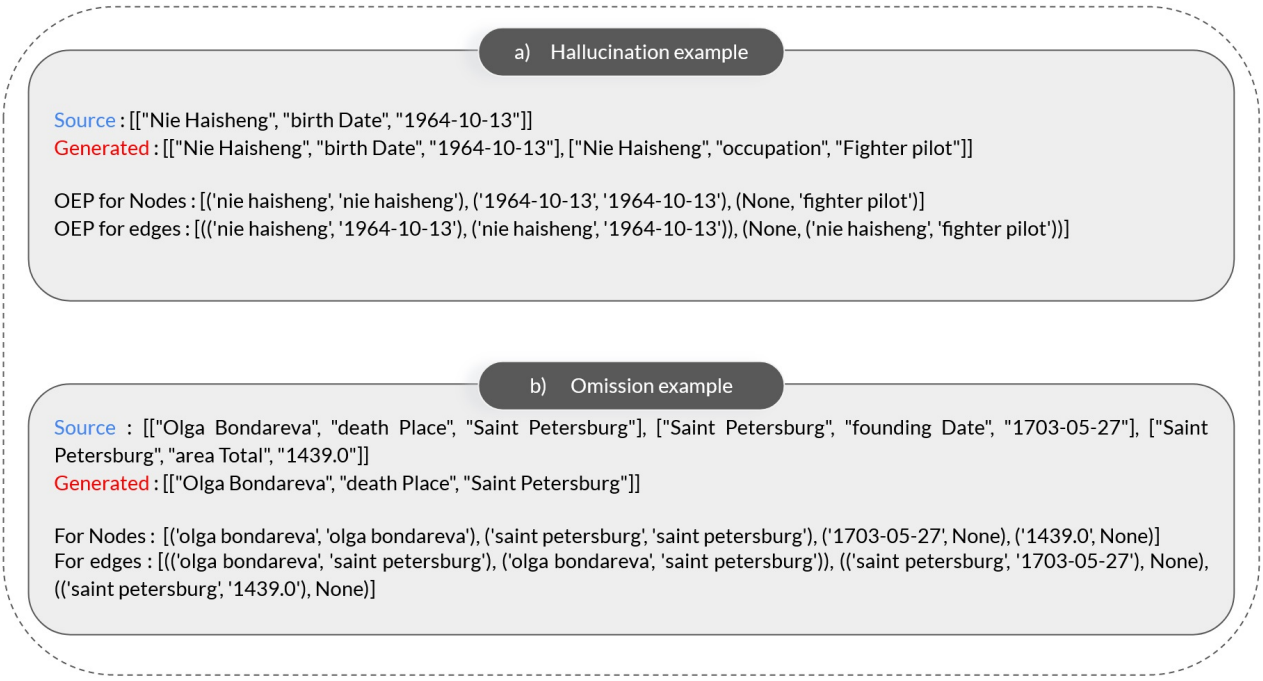

Figure 4: Results examples

As mentioned earlier, the evaluation of the three methods is conducted using examples sourced from the test dataset of WebNLG+2020. The primary goal is to enhance G-F1, T-F1, G-BS, Bleu-F1, and ROUGE-F1 metrics, while reducing GED, Hallucination, and Omission.

4 Experiments

This section provides insights into the LLMs utilized in our study for ZSP, FSP, or FT, followed by the presentation of our experimental results.

In this section, we provide a brief overview of the LLMs utilized in our experiments. Our selection criteria focused on employing small, open-source, and easily accessible LLMs. All models were sourced from the HuggingFace platform[2]

- **Llama 2** [43] is a collection of pretrained and fine-tuned generative text models ranging in scale from 7 billion to 70 billion parameters. In our experiments, we deploy the 7B and 13B pretrained models, which have been converted to the Hugging Face Transformers format.
- Introduced by [14], **Mistral-7B-v0.1** is a pretrained generative text model featuring 7 billion parameters. Notably, Mistral-7B-v0.1 exhibits superior performance to Llama 2 13B across all benchmark tests in their experiments.
- In the work presented by [18], **Starling-7B** is introduced as an open LLM trained through Reinforcement Learning from AI Feedback (RLAIF). This model leverages the GPT-4 labeled ranking dataset, berkeley-nest/Nectar, and employs a novel reward training and policy tuning pipeline.

In our review of the state-of-the-art, we observed that, apart from [3], which incorporates hallucination evaluation in their experiments, other studies primarily focus on metrics such as precision, recall, F1 score, triple matching, or graph matching. In our approach to evaluating experiments, we consider also hallucination and omission through a linguistic lens.

Upon examining Table 1, we observe the superior performance of the FT method compared to ZSP and FSP for the T2KG construction task. Of particular interest is the finding that, with the exception of Llama2-7b, applying ZSP to the fine-tuned Llama2-7b results in worse performance than FSP on the original Llama2-7b. Overall, this table provides a clear visualization of the relative performance of each method, highlighting the strengths and limitations of each approach for T2KG construction.

Furthermore, it is evident that better results are achieved by providing more examples (more shots) to the same model, whether original or fine-tuned. The results underscore the positive correlation between the quantity of examples and the model's performance. Comparing the fine-tuned Mistral and fine-tuned Starling, they exhibit similar performance when given 7 shots, surpassing the two Llama2 models by a significant margin. The standout performer with ZSP on the fine-tuned LLM is Mistral, showcasing a considerable lead over other LLMs, including Starling. To corroborate these findings, future versions of our study plan to assess our fine-tuned models using an alternative dataset with diverse domains.

As depicted in Figure 2, Hall. represents Hallucinations, while Omis. denotes Omissions.

Taking into account our strategy of introducing an empty graph when LLMs fail to produce triples, we note that even with LLama2-13b with ZSP exhibiting the least favorable results across all metrics, it displays minimal hallucinations. Nonetheless, it's crucial to recognize that the model with the fewest hallucinations may not necessarily be the most suitable choice. To overcome this limitation in our evaluation metric, we aim to improve it by considering the

[2]Hugging Face: `https://huggingface.co/`

Table 1: Comparison of performance metrics and models

Model | Metric	G-F1	T-F1	G-BS	GED	F1-Bleu	F1-Rouge	Hall.	Omis.
PiVE	14.00	18.57	89.82	11.22	-	-	-	-
Mistral-0	2.30	0.00	77.87	15.93	54.97	55.15	20.63	31.48
Mistral-7	18.72	28.44	87.54	10.13	55.09	63.94	17.88	21.14
Mistral-FT-0	31.93	44.08	86.89	8.25	63.88	69.08	13.55	18.27
Mistral-FT-7	34.68	**49.11**	**91.99**	6.69	**71.78**	**77.43**	15.01	**14.45**
Starling-0	5.23	7.83	86.29	13.35	34.64	14.61	17.48	33.24
Starling-7	21.30	33.77	90.41	8.96	60.47	69.34	17.31	14.61
Starling-FT-0	21.47	28.29	72.86	11.87	44.07	47.69	10.17	42.78
Starling-FT-7	**35.69**	48.49	91.95	**6.60**	71.51	76.67	11.35	18.27
Llama2-7b-0	0.00	0.46	54.20	18.29	20.23	17.98	4.83	81.53
Llama2-7b-7	11.80	20.88	82.78	12.66	45.48	54.29	20.74	30.02
Llama2-7b-FT-0	3.82	15.41	59.19	15.78	16.82	17.95	6.07	79.20
Llama2-7b-FT-7	18.77	32.63	87.19	10.16	58.48	66.35	25.24	18.66
Llama2-13b-0	0.00	0.79	57.42	17.79	20.50	18.23	**4.78**	81.23
Llama2-13b-7	13.49	23.99	84.89	11.59	50.18	58.71	26.36	19.06
Llama2-13b-FT-0	20.52	32.18	75.88	11.38	46.53	50.78	11.64	39.63
Llama2-13b-FT-7	23.55	37.29	88.77	8.94	63.26	70.12	23.55	16.19

prevalence of empty graphs in the generated results before assessing them against ground truth graphs.

The G-BS consistently remains high, indicating that LLMs frequently generate text with words (entities or relations) very similar to those in the ground truth graphs. Among the models, the finetuned Starling with 7 shots achieves the highest G-F1, which focuses on the entirety of the graph and evaluates how many graphs are exactly produced the same, suggesting that it accurately generates approximately 36% of graphs identical to the ground truth. For various metrics, the finetuned Mistral with 7 shots performs exceptionally well, particularly in T-F1, where F1 scores are computed for all test samples and averaged for the final Triple Match F1 score. Additionally, it excels in metrics such as "Omis.," F1-Bleu, and F1-Rouge. F1-Bleu and F1-Rouge represent n-gram-based metrics encompassing precision (Bleu), recall (Rouge), and F-score (Bleu and Rouge). These metric could potentially yield even better results if synonyms of entities or relations are considered as exact matches.

The authors in [6] conduct evaluations using WebNLG+2020. Consequently, we adopt their approach (PiVE) as a baseline for comparison with our experiments. Upon analyzing the results, it becomes evident that nearly all fine-tuned LLMs outperform PiVE, which is applied on both ChatGPT and GPT-4 as mentioned before.

5 Conclusion and perspectives

This study delves into the Text-to-Knowledge Graph (T2KG) construction task, exploring the efficacy of three distinct approaches: Zero-Shot Prompting (ZSP), Few-Shot Prompting (FSP), and Fine-Tuning (FT) of Large Language Models (LLMs). Our comprehensive experimentation, employing models such as Llama2, Mistral, and Starling, sheds light on the strengths and

limitations of each approach. The results demonstrate the remarkable performance of the FT method, particularly when compared to ZSP and FSP across various models. Notably, the fine-tuned Llama2-7b with ZSP gaved worst results than FSP with the original Llama2. Additionally, the positive correlation between the quantity of examples and model performance underscores the significance of dataset size in training. An essential part of our study involves the evaluation metrics employed to assess the generated graphs. Particularly, we introduced nuanced considerations for refining these metrics to measuring hallucination and omission in the generated graphs, offering valuable insights into the fidelity of the constructed knowledge graphs.

Looking forward, there are promising perspectives for further enhancement. One is to involve refining evaluation metrics to accommodate synonyms of entities or relations in generated graphs, employing advanced methods or tools for synonym detection. Furthermore, leveraging LLMs for data augmentation in the T2KG construction task shows promise. Notably, during experimentation, LLMs, particularly Starling, exhibited the ability to provide continuity in generated results for T2KG, proposing texts alongside corresponding KGs (triples).

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